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Chapter 2

Buddhism and the Maritime Crossings

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Studies on the spread of Buddhist doctrines have mostly focused on the transmissions through the overland routes, known popularly as the "Silk Roads." In one recent volume on the subject, there is not a single chapter devoted to the spread of Buddhism through the maritime routes. Nor does the volume, whose goal is to "examine the spread of Buddhism in order to gain a deeper understanding of the way in which Buddhism found its way into countries and regions different from its area of origin,"[1] deal with Buddhism in Southeast Asia. The editors do not explain why the transmission of Buddhism through the maritime routes or its presence in Southeast Asia was not worth mentioning. The volume is indicative of the emphasis that has been put on the study of Central Asian Silk Roads at the cost of neglecting research on the transmission of Buddhism through the maritime routes.

This essay is a preliminary study of the maritime Buddhist networks that linked South Asia, Southeast Asia, and China.[2] The aim is to demonstrate that the spread of Buddhism through the maritime routes, like its transmission by the overland roads, was closely connected to mercantile activities.[3] Also similar to what Erik Zürcher has argued for the transmission through the overland routes,[4] the initial spread of Buddhism by the maritime routes to China took the form of "long-distance" rather than "contact" transmission. In other words, at least during the first two centuries of the Common Era, the intermediary region of maritime Southeast Asia seems to have been merely a "transit zone," a region where the monks changed ships, rather than a staging site for Buddhist doctrines entering China.[5] Additionally, while the role of Sri Lanka (Ceylon) in transmitting Theravāda doctrines to polities in Southeast Asia is well known, this study highlights the island's contribution to the spread of Tantric doctrines through the maritime routes. Without the examinations of these and other aspects of maritime Buddhist networks and linkages, it would be difficult to fully comprehend the dynamics of the spread of Buddhism in Asia and the impact it had on several Asian societies and polities.[6]

The Maritime "Silk Route"

The German geographer Ferdinand von Richthofen coined the term "Silk Roads" (*Die Seidenstrassen*) in 1877 for the overland routes that linked China to Europe through Central Asia. Subsequently, all other conduits that connected ancient China to the outside world (especially regions to the west of China) were called "Silk Roads" or "Silk Routes." Although the use of these terms draws the attention of general readers and non-specialists, it creates an inaccurate perception that silk trade dominated every route between China and rest of the world. In the case of the maritime routes, silk from China was neither the earliest nor the most commonly traded commodity. The early

history of maritime trade indicates the prevalence of beads, precious stones, and pearls as the main merchandise; during the later periods, bulk goods, such as incense, pepper, spices, and porcelain dominated the trading activity. Thus the label "maritime Silk Road" used in many publications is not pertinent for the sea routes that linked the coastal regions of China to the Indian subcontinent and the Persian Gulf.

Another problem with use of the term "Silk Road" in the context of maritime exchanges is the unwarranted emphasis it automatically places on the role and importance of China. Indeed, China was a major market and source for commercial items, but ports, traders, and ships from Southeast Asia, the Indian subcontinent, and the Middle East were also crucial for sustaining trading and cultural exchanges through the maritime routes. In fact, it was only from the tenth century that the Chinese started to actively engage in maritime interactions in the Indian Ocean.[7]

Moreover, it must be recognized that the emergence of Southeast Asia as an important economic, political, and religious centre was crucial for the development of maritime routes that linked the Mediterranean Sea to the coastal regions of China. Already between 2500 BCE and 1500 BCE, the Austronesian migrations not only created maritime networks that connected southern China, mainland Southeast Asia, and the Indonesian Archipelago but also contributed to the emergence of an integrated system of maritime and overland interactions and exchanges.[8] The diffusion of metal technology and know-how for wet rice cultivation during the first millennium BCE took place through these interconnected maritime and overland networks.[9] By the second half of the first millennium BCE, such exchanges extended to the Indian subcontinent, with sailors and traders from Southeast Asia playing an equally important role as their South Asian counterparts.[10] While semi-precious stones and glass were some of the main imports, Southeast Asia exported tin, gold, and other goods. It has also been suggested that Indian craftsmen residing in Southeast Asia were manufacturing goods based on Indian styles and technology for internal consumption as well as for export.[11]

In the first century CE, indigenous agricultural developments and maritime contacts with the Indian subcontinent prompted the emergence of Funan 扶南 (in the present-day southern Vietnam and Cambodia regions) in the Mekong Delta as a powerful and strategic "buffer" between South Asia and China. The Funanese ports, as Munoz notes, "acted as intermediaries in the trans-shipment of cargoes between these two giant markets."[12] Funan played this significant role in the maritime exchanges between India and China until about the middle of the fifth century.[13]

In South Asia, the establishment of the Mauryan empire in about 324 BCE helped prolong a period of urban growth and commercial activity that began in the Gangetic plains sometime in the fifth century BCE. The Kuṣāṇs (first to third centuries) and Guptas (ca. 330–ca. 550) in the north and the Sātavāhanas (ca. 230 BCE–ca. 220 CE), Cheras (third century BCE–twelfth century CE), and Cōḷas (ca. 850–1279) in southern India sustained internal and external trade through to the thirteenth century CE. During the early first century CE, as evidenced by archaeological and textual sources, maritime trade between the coastal regions of India and the Roman Empire thrived. Roman coins, beads, semi-precious stones, and glassware, for example, are found in Tamil Nadu and Andhra Pradesh in southern India. In exchange for these products, black pepper and textiles were exported from the Indian subcontinent.[14]

Some of the Roman products and goods trans-shipped from southern India have been excavated from sites in Southeast Asia and coastal China. In fact, already during the Qin 秦 (221–206 BCE) and Former Han 前漢 (202 BCE–23 CE) periods, exotic items such as rhinoceros horns, ivory, pearls, and incense were reaching the Chinese coast, especially to the ports in Jiaozhi 交趾 (present-day northern Vietnam), Hepu 合浦 (in present-day Guangxi Province), and Panyu 番禺 (present-day Guangzhou), from Southern Asia through Southeast Asia.[15] Sima Qian 司馬遷 (145–86? BCE), the author of *Shiji* 史

記 (Historical records), reports that during the Han 漢 dynasty (202 BCE–220 CE) Guangzhou was a flourishing trading outpost. Another court historian, Ban Gu 班固 (32–92), describes the port as a place to accumulate great wealth through the exchange of foreign commodities that attracted traders from the Chinese hinterland.[16]

Some of these foreign commodities (such as glass, amber, and agate) entering Hepu and Guangzhou have been discovered in Han-dynasty tombs belonging to local elites, the main consumers of these imported goods. It has been suggested that early maritime trade also had a significant impact on the production of agricultural goods and handicrafts in Guangzhou, contributing to the commercialization of the city and leading to the growth of commercial exchanges between the coastal region and the hinterland.[17] By the Jin 晉 period (265–420 CE), the availability of imported goods had become so widespread that even commoners were able to afford and use foreign jewelry and other luxuries.[18] Traders from Southern Asia, Parthia, and the Roman colonies are known to have frequented the markets in Guangzhou as early as the Eastern Han 東漢 dynasty (25–220 CE). With these traders, transiting through Southeast Asia, Buddhist preachers, texts, and ritual items came to China.

Buddhism and Trade

Studies on the transmission of Buddhism to China through the maritime routes have often focused on whether it predated the spread of the doctrine by the overland routes.[19] Scholars such as Liang Qichao and Paul Pelliot, for example, argued that Buddhist doctrines might have been initially transmitted to China through the maritime rather than the overland route. Others, including Tang Yongtong and Rong Xinjiang, have disputed this argument and instead reiterated the traditional view that the doctrines were first relayed through Central Asia to Han China.[20] This debate, however, is irrelevant largely due to the lack of archaeological evidence for Buddhist monastic institutions in both eastern Central Asia and maritime Southeast Asia before the fourth century, by which time Buddhism had already penetrated Chinese society. Without such evidence, Erik Zürcher's argument (see p. 48), that Buddhist doctrines may have spread from Southern Asia to China through "long-distance" rather than "contact" transmission continues to hold sway among some scholars.[21]

Additionally, archaeological evidence from inland and coastal regions of China suggests that both overland and maritime routes were instrumental in the initial spread of Buddhist doctrines. While the late second-century Buddhist images carved on the boulders of Mount Kongwang 孔望山 in the coastal region of Jiangsu Province point to the transmission of Buddhism through the maritime routes, figures of the Buddha discovered in Han-dynasty tombs in Sichuan Province suggest the spread of Buddhist ideas and images by the land routes.[22] In other words, the initial *transmissions* of the doctrine may have been by multiple routes and not necessarily through a single conduit.

Instead of debating the route through which Buddhist doctrines were initially transmitted to Han China, it would be more prudent to examine the complementary, interconnected, and sometimes competitive roles of the overland and maritime routes in Buddhist interactions across Asia. For instance, several Buddhist missionaries and pilgrims used a combination of maritime and overland routes to travel between Southern Asia and China. Similarly, the creation of Mahāyāna-dominated networks on the Central Asian overland routes and the emergence of maritime networks that featured the spread of Theravāda doctrines exemplified the complementary nature of the two routes. The competitive aspects of the two routes, especially with respect to the role of various merchant communities in these Buddhist exchanges, is less studied. Merchant groups involved in long-distance commercial networks included those who supported the Buddhist cause and others who adhered to Brahmanism or Islam. Even within mercantile groups that supported the Buddhist cause, the lucrative trade in Buddhist texts and ritual items may have triggered competition and rivalries. The experience of the Chinese monk Faxian 法顯

(337/342–ca. 422) on board a merchant ship, described below, is indicative of occasional tensions between Buddhist travellers and merchant groups.

Scholars such as James Heitzman have demonstrated that the initial spread of Buddhism within South Asia was closely linked to the expansion of commercial networks, with Buddhist monastic institutions existing near major commercial towns or long-distance trading routes and forming a relationship of mutual support with the merchant communities.[23] Based on this model, Xinru Liu has argued that the transmission of Buddhist doctrines to China was the result of an interdependent and reciprocal relationship between Buddhist monks and merchants travelling between India and China. Merchants regularly assisted the growing number of Buddhist monks journeying across the overland and maritime routes to China, met the increasing demand for ritual items, and actively financed monastic institutions and proselytizing activities. Buddhist monks and monasteries, in turn, fulfilled the spiritual needs of the itinerant merchants and helped introduce new items into the stream of commodities traded between India and China. According to Liu, the Buddhist teaching of *saptaratna* (Ch. *qibao* 七寶, "seven jewels"), used to describe offerings of precious objects to Buddhist monastic institutions,[24] created and sustained the demand for commodities such as pearls, lapis lazuli, and coral exported from India.

Often neglected in such discussions of the relationship between Buddhist monks and merchant communities, however, are the cases of antagonism towards Buddhism among some merchant communities. Traders usually specialized in marketing specific commodities and focused on a particular segment of the larger trading networks. Sometimes they owed allegiance to a particular political/economic patron or believed in a specific deity or religious tradition. Thus the relationship between the Buddhist community and itinerant traders must have been more complex than is usually recognized. Traders who provided passage to preachers and transmitted ritual items from one region to another perhaps sometimes did so due to their own sectarian prejudices and preferences.

Faxian experienced this antagonism towards Buddhism on his return journey to China sometime in 411. After his journey across the Bay of Bengal, Faxian transferred to a large mercantile ship at a Southeast Asian island called Yepoti 耶婆提 (Yavadvīpa?).[25] About a month into the journey, the ship encountered a severe storm. The terrified merchants on the ship, whom Faxian describes as "Brahmins," blamed the Chinese monk for bringing the vessel bad luck and suggested that he be abandoned on a nearby island. It was only after Faxian's "patron" (*tanyue* 檀越; Skt. *dānapati*) aboard the ship threatened to report such an action to the Chinese ruler, who reportedly believed in Buddhism and respected Buddhist monks, that the "merchants faltered and dared not put Faxian ashore."[26]

There may have been other such antagonistic encounters between Buddhist monks and merchants along both the overland and maritime routes, especially when the traders in question adhered strongly to other religions. Deserving more scrutiny, for example, is the relationship between itinerant Buddhist monks and the networks of Brahmanical and Muslim traders who dominated intra-Asian routes after the first millennium. Indeed, rivalries are known to have existed between the Buddhists and Brahmanists in South and Southeast Asia, which must have affected the relationship between certain merchant communities and the Buddhist saṃgha (Pali saṅgha).[27]

Maritime Buddhism

The spread of Buddhism via the maritime routes was an equally diverse and complex process as the transmission by the overland routes. Monks and merchants from various parts of Asia were involved in these maritime exchanges, and the doctrines included various aspects of Mahāyāna, Theravāda, and Tantric traditions. There were also several segments of Buddhist exchanges within the vast maritime networks that extended from Iran to the coastal regions of Korea and Japan. In addition to the South Asia–China maritime networks of Buddhist exchanges, there were networks that, for example,

linked Sri Lanka to Myanmar (Burma), and Japan to China. Each of these networks had its own characteristics, with unique doctrinal, linguistic, political, and economic linkages. Here only two facets of maritime transmission of Buddhism are discussed. The first section below deals with the maritime network that linked ancient India and China (Figure 1), examining in particular the role of traders and Southeast Asian polities in facilitating Buddhist contacts between the two regions. The second section focuses on the role of Sri Lanka in fostering its own networks of Buddhist connections through the relic cult and the transmission of Tantric Buddhism.

The India-China Networks

The early maritime transmission of Buddhism from South Asia to China is evident from the Buddhist carvings at Mount Kongwang in northern Jiangsu Province. Interspersed with Daoist motifs, the images found on the mountain also include donor figures dressed in Central Asian clothing. Scholars have identified these as representations of either Indo-Scythians or Parthians, people who were key players in the maritime trading networks linking the coastal regions of India and China via Southeast Asia. A more specific example of this maritime network of Central Asian traders and their contributions to the spread of Buddhism through the maritime routes comes from the biography of the Sogdian monk Kang Senghui 康僧會 (d. 280). Kang's ancestors reportedly lived in India and engaged in commercial activities. His father, a seafaring trader, migrated to Jiaozhi (see Figure 2), where Senghui grew up and became a Buddhist monk.[28] From Jiaozhi, Kang Senghui travelled to Jiankang 建康 (present-day Nanjing), located in the same province of China as Mount Kongwang. After reaching China, Kang was closely associated with the court of the Chinese ruler Sun Quan 孫權 (222–52) and played an important

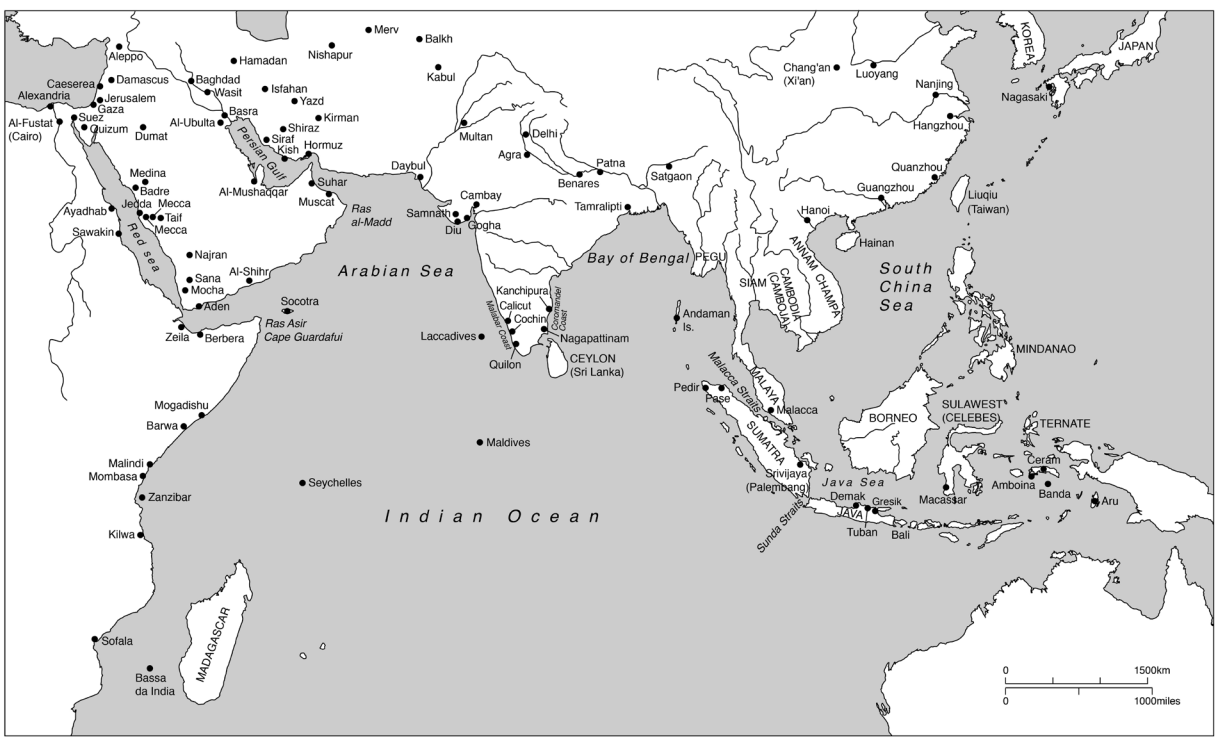


Figure 1. Maritime Asia.
Source: Map drawn by Inspiration Design House, Hong Kong.

role in the spread of Buddhism in southern China.[29] Indeed, contacts between the Jiaozhi-Funan region in Southeast Asia and the Chinese court in Nanjing were well established by the third century. In the mid-third century, for example, Sun Quan sent two diplomatic envoys, one of perhaps Sogdian descent called Kang Tai 康泰 (fl. third century), to Jiaozhi and Funan, perhaps with the intention of promoting commercial links between the two regions.[30]

The above-mentioned maritime links between Southeast Asia and coastal China, with people from Central Asia as intermediaries, may have been an outcome of the establishment of the Kuṣāṇa empire in the first century CE. By incorporating parts of Central Asia and northern and eastern India into the newly established empire, the Kuṣāṇas facilitated the formation of interlocking overland and maritime trading networks. Sogdian traders were actively engaged in these networks and also involved in the diplomatic and religious exchanges between various Asian polities. Indeed, the intertwined associations among trade, diplomacy, and the spread of religious ideas was one of the key features of the cross-cultural networks, both overland and maritime, that connected most of Asia during the first millennium.

Textual sources mention many other Buddhist monks from Southern and Central Asia finding their way to Nanjing through Southeast Asia from the fourth to the sixth centuries. These included the Kaśmīri monks Fotuoshi 佛陀什 (Buddhajīva?, fl. fifth century) and Qiunabamo 求那跋摩 (Guṇavarman?, 367–431), as well as Qiunabatuoluo 求那跋陀羅 (Guṇabhadra?, 394–468), Zhendi 真諦 (Paramārtha, 499–569 CE), and Putidamo 菩提達摩 (Bodhidharma?, fl. sixth century) from elsewhere in South Asia.[31] The latter three monks are reported to have first disembarked at Guangzhou (see Figure 1), which had emerged as an important Buddhist centre in the third century. South Asian monks who arrived in Guangzhou in the third century included Qiyu 耆域 (Jīvaka?)[32] and Jiamoluo 迦摩羅 (Kumāra?), both of whom helped establish some of the earliest Buddhist monasteries in the area. Later, during the Eastern Jin 東晉 period (317–420), a monk from Jibin 罽賓 (Kapiśa, indicating, during this period, the regions of present-day Kaśmīr, Pakistan, and Afghanistan) named Tanmoyeshe 曇摩耶舍 (Dharmayaśas?, fl. fifth century), who arrived in China in 401 and is said to have been associated with the famous Guangxiao Monastery 光孝寺 in Guangzhou.[33]

Reports of the arrival and presence of Buddhist monks in Guangzhou from the third to the fifth centuries are indicative of the growth of maritime Buddhist interactions between South Asia and China. The intimate association between seafaring merchants and itinerant monks was no doubt one of the important reasons for the introduction of Buddhist doctrines in Guangzhou. The prospect of accumulating wealth through commercial activity and the presence of Buddhist monasteries in the region seem to have attracted Chinese immigrants from the north and triggered the process of urbanization and commercialization in Guangzhou.[34] Shortly thereafter, Guangzhou emerged as a key centre from which Buddhist doctrines spread to the hinterlands.

A story reported in the sixth-century Buddhist text *Chu sanzang ji ji* 出三藏記集 (Collections of records concerning the translation of the Tripiṭaka) confirms the intimate association between foreign merchant communities and Buddhism in the Guangzhou area. According to the work, the wife of a fourth-century Indian expatriate in Guangzhou named Zhu Pole 竺婆勒 (Bhallaka?) gave birth to a son called Jinqie 金伽 (Kiṇka?), who later became a monk under the apprenticeship of Dharmayaśas, the monk from Kapiśa mentioned above.[35] The connection between seafaring merchants and the spread of Buddhism is apparent also in the case of the fifth-century South Asian "ship owner" (*bozhu* 舶主) Nanti or Zhu Nanti 竺難提 (Nandin?), who frequented the route between Southern Asia and the coastal regions of China and provided passage to the famous Kaśmīri monk Guṇavarman as well as to two groups of Sri Lankan nuns travelling to Guangzhou. Nandin himself is said to have been involved in the translation of Buddhist texts into Chinese.[36]

Noteworthy in these maritime Buddhist exchanges between India and China is the role of Sri Lanka, a topic discussed in more detail below. Some of the

Buddhist monks arriving in China first halted in Sri Lanka before boarding ships that brought them to China through Southeast Asia. Guṇavarman, for example, embarked from Sri Lanka to Java, where he lived for several years, and then reached Nanjing in 431.[37] Evidence for the existence of an India–Sri Lanka–Southeast Asia–China maritime network during the fifth century can also be found in a report of the Chinese pilgrim Faxian's return journey from India. His detailed record of that maritime voyage provides the first glimpse of contemporaneous maritime networks, the perils of sea travel, and the simultaneously interdependent and contentious nature of the relationship between Buddhist monks and itinerant traders.

Faxian first travelled from the eastern Indian port city of Tāmralipti to Sri Lanka sometime in 411, and then boarded a mercantile ship that was heading to Southeast Asia (Figure 2). This "large ship" (*dabo* 大舶), according to Faxian, accommodated more than two hundred people and was accompanied by a small rescue boat. On the third day of the voyage, the sailors encountered a typhoon and the vessel started leaking. This forced the ship to make an unscheduled stop and the merchants to unload their precious cargo while the ship was repaired. In all, it took about ninety days for the ship to reach Yepoti in Southeast Asia.[38]

Faxian's journey from Yepoti to China was no more trouble-free. After five months in Yepoti, he apparently embarked on a ship similar to the one he had taken from Sri Lanka. This ship, which was sailing towards the Chinese coastal town of Guangzhou, also had two hundred people on board and carried provisions for fifty days. As in the preceding phase of his journey, Faxian's vessel encountered strong winds and drifted off its intended course. After about three months of drifting, the ship, to the surprise of the bewildered sailors, reached the shores of northeast China, hundreds of miles from its planned destination (see Figure 2). Recapitulating the perils of sea travel, Faxian wrote:

> On the seas (hereabouts) there are many pirates, to meet with whom is speedy death. The great ocean spreads out, a boundless expanse. There is no knowing east or west; only by observing the sun, moon, and stars was it possible to go forward. If the weather were dark and rainy, (the ship) went as she was carried by the wind, without any definite course. In the darkness of the night, only the great waves were to be seen, breaking on one another, and emitting a brightness like that of fire, with huge turtles and other monsters of the deep (all about). There merchants were full of terror, not knowing where they were going. The sea was deep and bottomless, and there was no place where they could drop anchor and stop. But when the sky became clear, they could tell east and west, and (the ship) again went forward in the right direction. If she had come on any hidden rock, there would have been no way of escape.[39]

Faxian's record reflects an apparent shift in the shipping lanes through Southeast Asia. The Funan-Jiaozhi region was the key link in the maritime exchanges between South Asia and China, and a reason the Chinese ruler Sun Quan had sent diplomats to the area. The port of Oc Eo in Funan, in particular, was a major transit point for maritime trade between China and the rest of Asia. Funan not only had diplomatic relations with the Chinese courts, but also, in the sixth century, sent monks such as Sengqieboluo 僧伽婆羅 (Saṃghapāla? 460–524) and Mantuoluo[xian] 曼陀羅[仙] (Mandra[sena]? active 502–19) to Nanjing to engage in the translation of Buddhist texts.[40] Starting sometime in the fifth century, however, the islands of Java and Sumatra in the Indonesian Archipelago and Kedah (see Figure 3) on the Malay Peninsula began emerging as the main centres of maritime trade. As a result, the ship Faxian boarded in Sri Lanka seems to have stopped at an Indonesian island instead of Oc Eo or any other Funan port. Most Buddhist monks travelling by sea between India and China during the later periods also passed through the Indonesian islands.

Despite these records of frequent maritime activity through Southeast Asia, there is no archaeological evidence for the presence of monastic Buddhism in the coastal areas of the region before the fourth century. Faxian did not find evidence of Buddhism in Yepoti when he changed ships there, and the biography

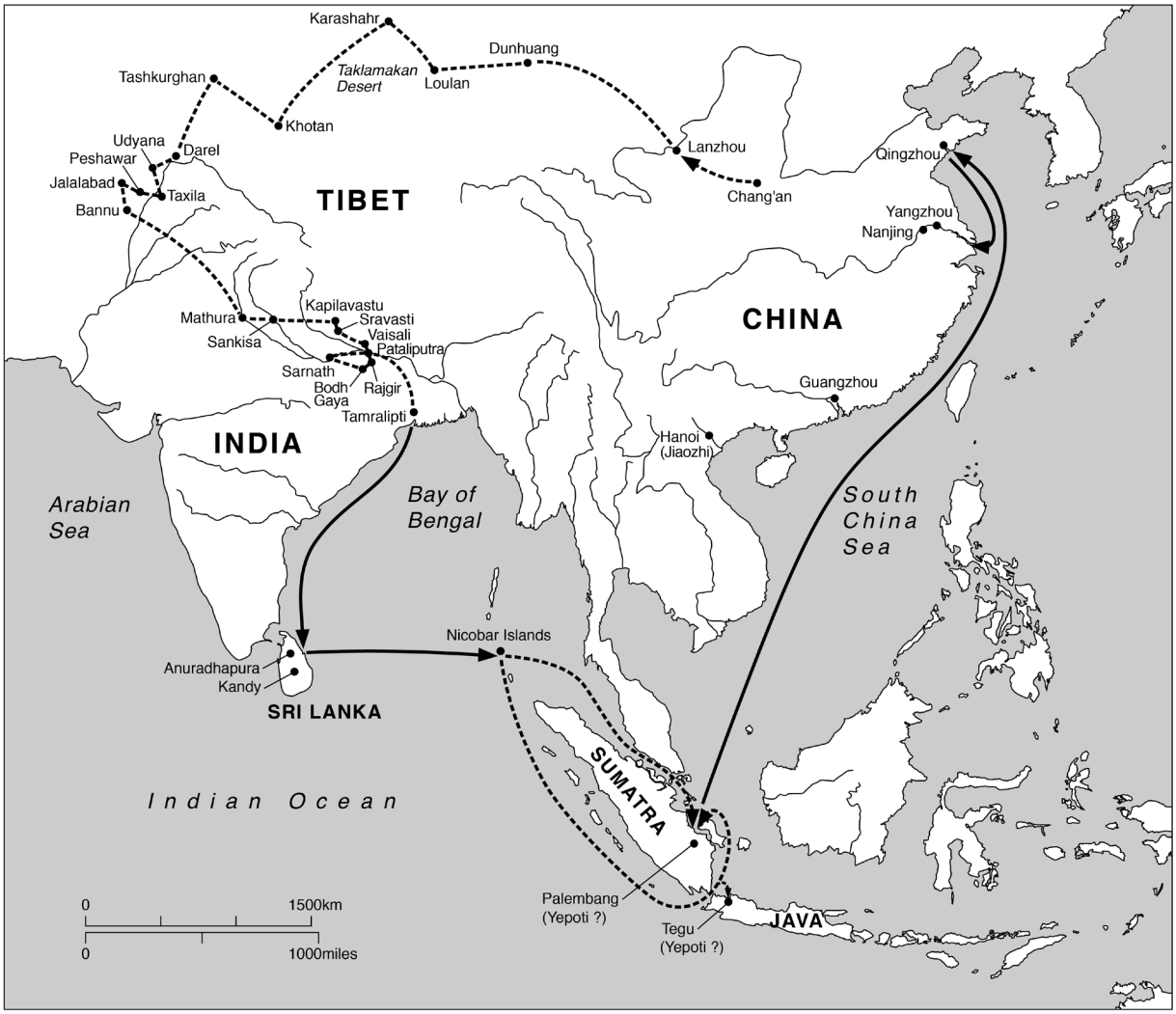


Figure 2. Routes of the Chinese monk Faxian's (337/342–ca. 422) travels.
Source: Map drawn by Inspiration Design House, Hong Kong.
Note: Faxian's return voyage to China from India began sometime in 411.

of Guṇavarman in Huijiao's 慧皎 (497–554) *Gaoseng zhuan* 高僧傳 (Biography of eminent monks) implies that the Kaśmīri monk played a crucial role in establishing Buddhist doctrines in the Holing region of Java only in the early fifth century.[41] The earliest inscription associated with Buddhism in Southeast Asia also dates from the fifth century (Figure 4). Found in Kedah, in present-day Malaysia, this inscription was commissioned by a "sea captain" named Buddhagupta from Raktamṛttikā (in Malay Peninsula?) and records prayers offered to the Buddha.[42] It seems that before the fifth century, Southeast Asia was a transit zone for Buddhist monks travelling on mercantile ships from South Asia to China. The main transit zones in the region may not have possessed monastic institutions or a



Figure 3. Southeast Asian ports and other sites in the sixth century.
Source: Map drawn by Inspiration Design House, Hong Kong.



Figure 4. Buddhagupta inscription.
Source: Indian Museum, Kolkata. Photograph courtesy of Indian Museum, Kolkata.
Note: Commissioned by a sea captain named Buddhagupta. Found in Kedah, in present-day Malaysia. Fifth century.

large community of monks who were capable of sustaining proselytizing activities. Thus the maritime spread of Buddhism from South Asia to China may have taken place in the form of long-distance transmission rather than by contact expansion through Southeast Asia.

This process seems similar to what Erik Zürcher has explained with respect to the role of eastern Central Asia in the overland transmission of Buddhism. Zürcher notes that it was only in the middle of the third century, when the oasis towns in eastern Central Asia witnessed increased agricultural production, population growth, and commercial expansion, that conditions were created in the region for the establishment of monastic Buddhism. It was after this development that places such as Kucha and Khotan were able to contribute vigorously to the spread of Buddhism in China.[43]

A hint at the possible existence of Buddhism in maritime Southeast Asia prior to the fourth century comes from the Chinese biography of the Sogdian monk Kang Senghui, where it is suggested that he became a monk in Jiaozhi.[44] However, the record does not mention the existence of monastic institutions or other monks in the region in the third century. The only inference we can make from the biography of Kang Senghui is that Sogdian seafaring merchants based in Southeast Asia were involved in the Buddhist interactions between South Asia and China.[45]

The fifth-century Buddhagupta inscription (see Figure 4) confirms the close connection between Buddhism and seafaring traders, and further indicates the rise of Kedah as a major commercial site, as well as the existence of Buddhism in the region. The important position of the Malay Peninsula and Indonesian Archipelago in maritime commercial and Buddhist exchanges was reinforced by the establishment of the powerful Śrīvijayan polity (seventh to thirteenth centuries). Ruling from Palembang on the island of Sumatra (Figure 5), the Śrīvijayan rulers controlled the islands of Sumatara and Java as well as the Malay Peninsula. The expansion of the Śrīvijayan polity in the seventh century had a far-reaching impact on maritime interactions between the Bay of Bengal and the South China Sea regions. On the one hand, the Śrīvijayan polity started controlling commercial activities along the routes that connected Southern Asia to the coastal regions of China. On the other hand, it directly and indirectly stimulated Buddhist interactions through the maritime routes. Inscriptions from Nālandā and Nāgapaṭṭiṇam (on the eastern coast of India) and Nakhom Si Tammarat (in southern Thailand) indicate that the Śrīvijayan rulers actively used Buddhism in their diplomatic relations with courts in South and Southeast Asia. At all these sites, the Śrīvijayan rulers are reported to have given donations to Buddhist monastic institutions.[46]

Under the Śrīvijayan rulers, Palembang quickly developed into one of the leading Mahāyāna centres



Figure 5. Early Buddhist sites in Southeast Asia, fifth–seventh centuries.
Source: Map drawn by Inspiration Design House, Hong Kong.

in maritime Asia, providing both Chinese and Indian Buddhist monks with a place for learning its doctrines and rituals. The Chinese monk Yijing 義淨 (635–713), for example, studied in Śrīvijaya (Ch. Foshi) on his journey from Tang China to Nālandā in India (Figure 6). Underscoring the importance of Śrīvijaya in the Buddhist links between China and India, Yijing wrote:

> In the fortified city of Fo-che [Foshi 佛逝], there are more than one thousand Buddhist monks whose spirit is only turned to study and good actions. They study all possible subjects like in India. Rules and ceremonies are identical. If a Chinese monk wants to travel to India to listen and read Buddhist laws, he must stay in Fo-che for one or two years to learn how to behave properly. He could then pursue his travel in India.[47]

Yijing, in fact, returned to Sumatra to write his two historical works on the pilgrimages of Chinese monks to India and the ways in which Buddhism was practiced in contemporary India. In the former work, called *Da Tang Xiyu qiufa gaoseng zhuan* 大唐西域求法高僧傳 (Biographies of the eminent monks [who travelled to the] Western Regions in search of

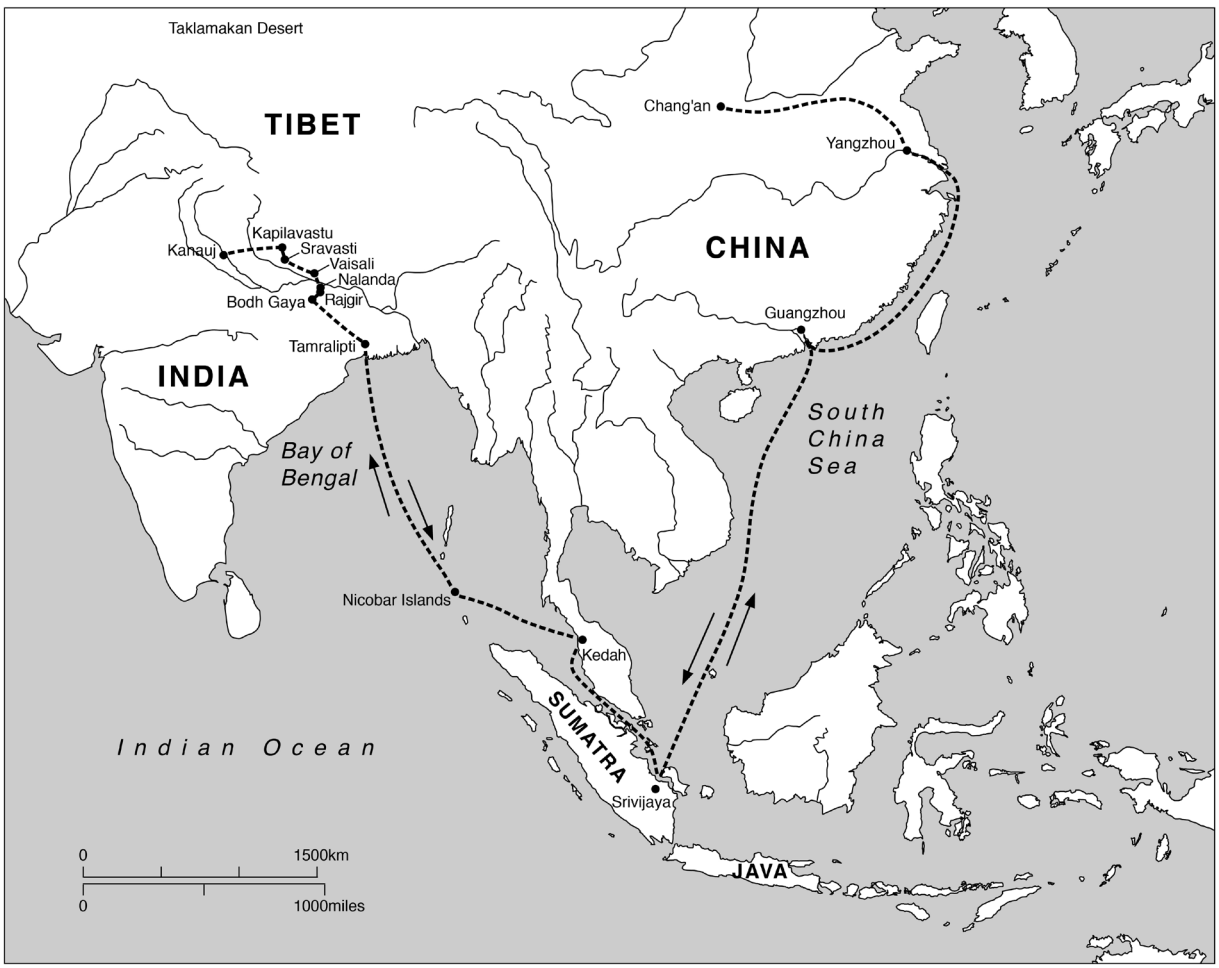


Figure 6. Routes of the Chinese monk Yijing's (635–713) travels.
Source: Map drawn by Inspiration Design House, Hong Kong.
Note: Yijing studied Sanskrit in Sumatra on his way to further studies in India.

the Law), which includes biographies of sixty Chinese monks, Yijing mentions thirty-six monks from China and two from Korea travelling to India by the sea route.[48]

Not mentioned in Yijing's works is the presence of Tantric Buddhism in Sumatra and other regions in Southeast Asia. An inscription in Old Malay from the Palembang area, bearing the date of 684, reveals, in the words of Hiram Woodward, "the possibility of acquaintance with the *Gaṇḍavyūha sutra*" among local Buddhist followers.[49] Other Sumatran inscriptions, such as those found in Kota Kapur (see Figure 5) and Telaga Batu, are also suggestive of the presence of Tantric Buddhism in the region. The travel records of several Buddhist monks confirm the popularity of Tantric Buddhism during the Śrīvijayan period. These monks included the Indians Nati 那提 (Puṇyodaya, fl. seventh century), who travelled between China and Cambodia and translated the *Maṇḍalasta sūtra* (Eightfold sutra),[50] as well as Vajrabodhi 金剛智 (670–741) and Amoghavajra 不空金剛 (d. 774), two famous Tantric masters active in Tang China. Vajrabodhi travelled through Java to China in the early eighth century,[51] and Amoghavajra passed through the region in the mid-eighth century, on his way from China to India. A few decades later, in 780, the Javanese monk Bianhong 辨弘 (fl. late eighth century) went to China and studied under Amoghavajra's student Huiguo 慧果 (746–805).[52]

Not only were Indian monks transiting through Śrīvijaya, but some even went there expressly to study Buddhism. The most telling example of such a student is Atīśa (982–1054), a prince from eastern India. In 1012, Atīśa went to Śrīvijaya to study under a local Buddhist monk named Dharmakīrti (fl. eleventh century). After about thirteen years in Southeast Asia, Atīśa returned to India and established himself at the Vikramaśīla Monastery, where he became one of the most prominent monks in the eleventh century. In 1040, he was invited to Tibet, where he contributed significantly to the development of Tibetan Buddhism. Atīśa is said to have carried with him to Tibet the oldest surviving Buddhist commentary from Southeast Asia, known as *Durbodha āloka* (Illuminating the unfathomable), composed by his teacher Dharmakīrti.[53]

By the end of the twelfth century, the nature of Buddhist interactions between China and India had changed. Buddhist clergy in China had decided to embark on their own ideological path, one that moved away from the Tantric ideas then popular in India.[54] At the same time, the trading networks in the Bay of Bengal that connected Myanmar, South India, Sri Lanka, and Southeast Asia became more vigorous. Through these strengthened maritime networks, Theravāda Buddhist ideas transmitted from Sri Lanka began to have a greater impact on Southeast Asian societies. Myanmar, Thailand, Cambodia, and Laos became integrated into these "Theravāda/Pali" networks, which gave shape to contemporary Buddhism in Southeast Asia.[55]

Sri Lanka and the Bay of Bengal Networks

Sri Lanka's role in the maritime transmission of Buddhist doctrines dates to at least the fourth century, when it emerged as an important transit point for Buddhist monks travelling from India to China. Although considered the heartland of Theravāda Buddhism, Mahāyāna and Tantric traditions also flourished on the island. Furthermore, Buddhist relics housed in Sri Lanka were frequently part of cross-cultural interactions, including military confrontations between local and foreign forces. In fact, by the early first millennium, Sri Lanka was recognized as a leading pilgrimage centre for Buddhists across Asia.

In his account of his visit to Sri Lanka in the fifth century, Faxian mentions the presence of several important relics of the Buddha in the kingdom. He notes the presence of a sapling grown from a cutting of the Bodhi tree under which the historical Buddha is said to have attained enlightenment, purportedly brought from Middle India and planted on the island during the reign of King Aśoka (r. ca. 270–232 BCE). He also describes the annual rituals venerating the Buddha's tooth at the Abhayagiri Monastery

(Wuweishan jingshe 無畏山精舍 in Faxian's records), which took place in the middle of the third month and were led by the pious ruler of the kingdom.[56] This tooth relic, the alms bowl of the Buddha, and a famed Buddha's footprint in Sri Lanka all attracted considerable attention from foreign rulers and travellers in later periods.

The Sinhalese *Cūḷavaṃsa* (Lesser chronicle), which was compiled over several centuries and covers the period from the fourth to the early nineteenth century, mentions a king from Southeast Asia (most likely from Tambralinga on the Malay Peninsula) called Candrabhānu (d.u.) who attacked Sri Lanka on two occasions, in 1247 and 1262, to obtain Buddhist relics.[57] Kublai Khan (1215–94), the ruler of Yuan 元 (1279–1368) China, may have also tried to procure some of the relics, perhaps the Buddha's alms bowl, by sending a special envoy in 1284. His previous missions to southern India, in 1272 and 1275, could have been related to this interest he (and also the Mongol ruler of Iran) had in Buddhist relics.[58] Later, the famous Chinese admiral Zheng He 鄭和 (1371–1433) of the Ming 明 dynasty (1368–1644), who fought and captured a Sri Lankan "ruler" in 1410, was most likely interested in acquiring the renowned tooth relic of the Buddha.[59] Rulers in Southeast Asia and China seem to have believed that the relics of the Buddha possessed magical powers and could be used to exert political power within and outside their kingdoms.[60]

The famous monk Amoghavajra was also attracted to Sri Lanka, the relics housed there, and perhaps even to the developing Tantric teachings in the island. In fact, some of his biographies mention Amoghavajra as a Sri Lankan native. In 741, shortly after the death of his master Vajrabodhi, Amoghavajra made a trip to Sri Lanka, either dispatched by the Tang ruler Xuanzong 玄宗 (r. 712–56) or because of his master's last wishes. There is also a possibility that Amoghavajra left China because of Xuanzong's 740 order expelling all foreign monks from China.[61] Jeffrey Roger Sundberg, however, has suggested that Amoghavajra may have gone to Sri Lanka to procure a key Tantric text called *Sarvatathāgata tattvasaṃgraha* (Assembly of all the Tathāgatas).[62]

Regardless of why Amoghavajra left China in 741, it is clear that his visit to Sri Lanka was closely associated with or inspired by Vajrabodhi's trip to the island several decades before. According to one of the biographies of Vajrabodhi, when he was in South India, Amitābha Buddha appeared to him and instructed him to go to Sri Lanka and venerate the tooth relic as well as the Buddha's footprint, and then proceed to China to pay homage to Mañjuśrī (Bodhisattva of Wisdom). Shortly thereafter, Vajrabodhi went to Sri Lanka, where the king, officials, and the laypeople received him warmly. He stayed at the Abhayagiri Monastery and he venerated the tooth relic for six months. He then travelled to Laṅkāparvata to see the footprint of the Buddha. After fulfilling these instructions of Amitābha Buddha, Vajrabodhi returned to South India and expressed his desire to go to China. The South Indian king tried to dissuade the monk from travelling by the perilous seas, but when Vajrabodhi insisted, he ordered one of his officials to accompany him and present gifts to the Chinese ruler. Sailing on a "Persian" ship (*Posi bo* 波斯舶) from Sri Lanka, Vajrabodhi arrived in Śrīvijaya, where, according to some sources, he is supposed to have first met Amoghavajra. Vajrabodhi reached China sometime in 719–20.[63]

Amoghavajra travelled to Sri Lanka on a Southeast Asian ship (*Kunlun bo* 崑崙舶) and passed by the island of Java. In Sri Lanka he was welcomed by the king and his ministers much as Vajrabodhi had been. The king personally bathed the monk and housed him in his palace. Amoghavajra met a Sri Lankan monk named Puxian 普賢 (Samantabhadra, d.u.), from whom he learned the doctrine of Yoga embodied in the *Jin'gangding jing* 金剛頂經 (i.e., the *Sarvatathāgata tattvasaṃgraha* mentioned above) and the method of establishing an altar based on the *Yujia famen Piluzhe'na da bei taizang jianli tanfa* 瑜伽法門毘盧遮那大悲胎藏建立壇法 (*Mahākaruṇāgarbhadhātu maṇḍala*) found in the *Vairocana sūtra* (Ch. *Dari jing* 大日經). He seems to have also collected and read several other Tantric texts he found in the region. Additionally, some of Amoghavajra's disciples learned the Tantric coronation

rites known as the Five Divisions (*wubu fa* 五部法 / *wubu guanding* 五部灌頂).[64] He returned to China in 746, accompanying a diplomatic mission and carrying a letter and a Sanskrit copy of the *Prajñā-paramitā sūtra* ("*Bore fanjia*" 般若梵夾; Perfection of wisdom sutra) from the Sri Lankan king.

A key site that Vajrabodhi and Amoghavajra frequented in Sri Lanka was the Abhayagiri Monastery, known for its Mahāyāna leanings since the third century.[65] Given the popularity of Tantric Buddhism in the Bihar-Bengal region of India under the Pāla (750–1120 CE) rulers, there must have been frequent interactions between monasteries in eastern India and the Abhayagiri Monastery. Maritime links between the eastern coast of India, especially Tāmralipti, a port used by Faxian, and Sri Lanka were well established in this period. There are also reports of frequent visits by Sri Lankan monks to the Mahābodhi and Nālandā monasteries, which during the Pāla period were deeply influenced by Tantric teachings. Moreover, in around 800, the abbot of the Vikramaśīla Monastery, the leading Tantric centre in India patronized by the Pāla kings, was a Sri Lankan monk called Jayabhadra.[66] Indeed, as R.A.H.L. Gunawardana writes, "it is evident from archaeological material at the site of the Abhayagiri monastery that Tantric teachings had become influential by the ninth century."[67]

Already in the eighth century, the Abhayagiri Monastery seems to have had links to China and Southeast Asia. Evidence that Tantric ideas from Abhayagiri reached Southeast Asia comes from the Ratu Boko (Ratubaka) site in central Java (see Figure 3). A Sanskrit inscription from Ratu Boko dated 792 and written in pre-Nagari script suggests the possible presence of monks from Sri Lanka in the region, as well as architectural influences from the Abhayagiri Monastery. First analyzed by J. G. de Casparis about fifty years ago, the Javanese inscription states, "This Abhayagiri Vihāra here of the Ceylonese [Sinhalese] ascetics (?), trained in the sayings of the discipline of the Best of the Jinas, was established."[68] Pointing out that the inscription is evidence of the cultural relations between Java and Sri Lanka and of the Sinhalese influence on Javanese art and architecture, de Casparis writes that the most important detail in the inscription is the name of the foundation, that is, the Abhayagiri Vihāra. The name immediately suggests that of the famous monastery at Anurādhapura, and the addition "of the Ceylonese" proves that this is not just a coincidence. In fact, the Javanese foundation is a second Abhayagiri Vihāra: "either a more or less exact replica of the Ceylonese monastery or, more probably, a building which had enough in common with it—in form or spirit or both—to deserve the same name."[69] Véronique Degroot has noted that the inscription also indicates that the monastery was dedicated to the Bodhisattva Avalokiteśvara.[70]

John Miksic, who compared the Sinhalese and Javanese structures in the early 1990s, reports that the two buildings have similar platforms "joined by a 'bridge,' and surrounded by a wall." Both, he writes, were built on "rocky outcrops in areas on the fringe of a capital as their preferred locations. Pools are present beside the double platforms. Simplicity of stone carving is maintained. The walls are pierced by three doors, with one wall left intact. Even without the evidence of Sinhalese inscription of AD 792, we would strongly suspect that a direct connection existed between the two areas based solely on these architectural similarities."[71] Miksic also notes several differences between the two structures. The cardinal orientation of the Javanese platforms, for example, are different. Whereas in Sri Lanka the orientation is an east-west axis, the main axes of the Ratu Boko platforms are north-south (Figure 7). There are also differences in the floor pattern and size of the platforms. For Miksic, these differences are indicative of the Javanese adaptation of the Sinhalese model.[72] Degroot argues that the Sinhalese influence on the platforms began only in the later stages. They were initially not conceived to resemble the Sri Lankan model. "This explains why," Degroot writes, "at variance with the example of the Sinhalese buildings, the northern platform has four access points in place of one, and why the *gopura* of the enclosure are in like with those stairs and not with steps of the connecting gangway."[73]

It is clear from these examples that Sri Lanka had assumed a greater role in Buddhist networks of the



Figure 7. Stone platform.
Source: Photograph courtesy of John Miksic.
Note: After the Ratu Boko (Ratubaka) Buddhist monastic complex in central Java, showing Sinhalese influence on Javanese architecture. Eighth century.

Bay of Bengal from at least the eighth century. As a result, Buddhist ideas and artefacts originating in Sri Lanka became important elements of cross-cultural interactions along the maritime routes. This position consolidated between the eleventh and fifteenth centuries when intimate maritime links were established between Sri Lanka, Myanmar, Cambodia, and Thailand. These networks helped Buddhist monks seek refuge in Myanmar and other Southeast Asian regions when, in the eleventh century, Sri Lanka was invaded by the Cōḷas. Shortly after King Vijayabāhu I (r. 1055–1110) liberated the region, exiled monks from Sri Lanka and Myanmar collaborated to restore Buddhism in Sri Lanka. Thereafter, in the twelfth and thirteenth centuries, Sri Lankan rulers actively sent Buddhist monks, relics, and texts to Myanmar.

Buddhist exchanges between Sri Lanka and Myanmar continued to be intensive in the fourteenth and fifteenth centuries, with close cooperation being established with respect to Theravāda rituals and ceremonies.[74] Similar ties developed between Sri Lanka, Thailand, and Cambodia. Monks from Sri Lanka frequented the Sukhothai, Chiang Mai, and Ava regions of present-day Thailand, where they spread Theravāda doctrines and sometimes performed purification ceremonies. Sri Lanka's role in the transmission of Buddhism was evident also in the

nineteenth and twentieth centuries, when Anagarika Dharmapāla (1864–1933) attempted to revive the doctrine and make Buddhism a world religion. Many of his journeys to India, Japan, China, and United States were through the maritime routes.

Conclusion

The transmission of Buddhist doctrines, images, and texts from one cultural zone of Asia to another was a complex process that was undertaken by itinerant monks, traders, and other travellers. Trade routes were the main conduits through which ideas and artefacts associated with Buddhism moved from one place to another. Sometimes these movements were among places that were in close proximity to each other, and at other times they were over longer distances and through several distinct societies and cultures. The maritime networks that facilitated the spread of Buddhism are indicative of the multi-layered interactions and connectivity within Asia during the pre-colonial period.

Various forms of Buddhism may have begun spreading through the maritime networks as early as the time of the Indian ruler Aśoka (r. ca. 270–232 BCE), during whose reign the doctrine is known to have entered Sri Lanka. With the development of maritime linkages between the Indian subcontinent and Southeast and East Asian ports in the early first millennium, Buddhism spread even farther. This maritime spread of Buddhism not only complemented the transmission of the doctrine via the land routes but resulted in the creation of unique networks of exchange. The demand for foreign luxuries in the coastal regions of China attracted new seafaring traders from as far away as Central Asia. Many of these traders brought Buddhist ideas to China and facilitated the movement of Buddhist monks across the Bay of Bengal and South China Sea.

Similar to eastern Central Asia on the overland route, the maritime regions of Southeast Asia played the role of a transit zone in the early spread of Buddhism from India to China. Before the fifth century, this region did not seem to have monastic communities or a large contingent of monks to undertake proselytizing activities in China. In fact, the maritime traffic between India and China may have contributed to the establishment of Buddhism in some regions of maritime Southeast Asia. This can be discerned, for example, in the report of Guṇavarman's accomplishments in Java on his way to Nanjing. His journey from India to China through Sri Lanka and Java is also indicative of how the regions in the Bay of Bengal and the South China Sea were connected through Buddhist and commercial networks. What needs to be examined in more detail, however, is the contribution of Southeast Asia to Chinese Buddhism after important centres of Buddhism were established in both mainland and maritime Southeast Asia.

Compared to the overland routes, Buddhist linkages through the maritime networks endured for a longer time. While the overland routes became dominated by Islamic exchanges in the thirteenth century, Buddhist interactions through the maritime routes continued into the nineteenth and twentieth centuries. After the eleventh century, for example, the maritime networks became intimately associated with Theravāda/Pali Buddhism drawing together Sri Lanka and various mainland and maritime polities of Southeast Asia. With the spread of Chinese diasporic communities to Southeast Asia, maritime networks also facilitated the spread of Buddhist ideas from China to various areas of the South China Sea. Eventually, in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries, Buddhist exchanges between China and South Asia were reestablished due to the migration of Chinese to places such as Calcutta (now Kolkata) and the activities of the Chinese monk Taixu 太虛 (1890–1947) and his disciples. Malaya, Singapore, Thailand, and Myanmar became important intermediaries in these linkages, reviving, in some ways, the ancient maritime Buddhist networks of the first millennium CE. These later maritime transmissions of Buddhism are often neglected and also deserve more attention.

Notes

1. Heirman and Bumbacher, "Introduction: The Spread of Buddhism," p. 1.
2. As Lewis Lancaster points out in his chapter in this volume, the use of contemporary nation-states to discuss patterns of premodern Buddhist interactions is problematic. The same would be true for the names of provinces and states within these nation-states that did not exist before the twentieth century. With shifting political borders, expanding and contracting empires, and the changing names of towns and cities, it is difficult to create a satisfactory terminology for geographical regions in studies that deal with several centuries of cross-regional interactions. In this essay, "India" is used for the region that now comprises of Bangladesh, India, and Pakistan; and "China" generally refers to the area within the present-day People's Republic of China. When specific kingdoms and ancient polities are mentioned, the approximate contemporary region they encompassed is provided in parentheses.
3. For an excellent study of the transmission of Buddhism through the overland trade networks, see Neelis, *Early Buddhist Transmission*. Maritime networks in South Asia and the spread of Buddhism from coastal India to Southeast Asia has been discussed by Ray in *The Winds of Change*. See also Lewis Lancaster's chapter in the present volume.
4. See Zürcher's "Han Buddhism," and "Buddhism across Boundaries."
5. I discuss the role of maritime Southeast Asia in the transmission of Buddhism from South Asia to China in a separate study, called " Maritime Southeast Asia between South Asia and China to the Sixteenth Century."
6. Although maritime networks were also instrumental in the Buddhist exchanges between China and Japan, they are not covered here. But see Dorothy C. Wong's chapter in this volume discussing Monk Jianzhen's travels to Japan.
7. Sen, "Maritime Interactions."
8. Bellwood, "The Origins and Dispersals."
9. Munoz, *Early Kingdoms*, pp. 29–44.
10. Munoz, *Early Kingdoms*, p. 45.
11. Glover and Bellina, "Ban Don Ta Phet," pp. 40–41.
12. Munoz, *Early Kingdoms*, p. 59. See also Wolters, *Early Indonesian Commerce*, pp. 37–45; Manguin, "The Archaeology of Early Maritime Polities"; Hall, "The 'Indianization' of Funan"; Ray, "Early Maritime Contacts"; and Vickery, "Funan Reviewed."
13. On Funan and its exchanges with South Asia and China, see Vickery, "Funan Reviewed."
14. Suresh, *Symbols of Trade*. See also Ray, "Early Maritime Contacts."
15. Sima Qian, *Shiji* 129: 3268; Yü, *Trade and Expansion*, chapter 7; Peters, "Towns and Trade"; and Liu Shufen, *Liuchao*, 318–20. On the findings at Hepu, see Wu, *Haishang Sichou zhilu yanjiu*.
16. Sima Qian, *Shiji* 129: 3268; and Ban Gu, *Hanshu* 28b: 1670. For a detailed study of China's maritime trade during this and later periods, see Wang, "The Nanhai Trade."
17. See Zhao, "Handai haishang Sichou zhilu."
18. Liu Shufen, *Liuchao*, p. 319.
19. Recent exceptions to this trend are Frasch, "A Buddhist Network"; Willemen, "Buddhism's Maritime Route"; Howard, "Pluralism of Styles"; and Deeg, "Maritime Routes."
20. A recent summary of this debate can be found in Rong, "Land Route or Sea Route?"
21. See Zürcher, "Han Buddhism" and "Buddhism across Boundaries." Evidence for Buddhism in the Pyu cities in Myanmar, despite some recent analysis, remains debatable. Pamela Gutman and Bob Hudson have recently speculated that a stele from Śrīkṣetra, central Myanmar, showing Buddhist influences dates from the first century CE. See Gutman and Hudson, "A First Century (?) Stele from Śrīkṣetra."
22. See Rhie, *Early Buddhist*, pp. 27–47.
23. Heitzman, "Early Buddhism."
24. The list of seven jewels (or seven precious objects) differs slightly from text to text. Usually they include gold, silver, lapis lazuli, crystal, coral, pearl, and agate. Other items that are sometimes included in the list are amber, carnelian, and diamond. Buddhist texts, such as *Mahāvastu* and the *Lotus Sutra*, describe the seven jewels as objects that a patron can offer as donations or adornments to the Buddha and his reliquaries in order to obtain supreme merit. In another, and perhaps earlier, context, the seven jewels in Buddhism denoted the things a righteous king possessed as symbols of his authority, status, and wealth: wheel, elephant, horse, gem, queen, householder, and a minister. See Xinru Liu's detailed discussion of the concept of seven jewels and its impact on commercial activities in *Ancient*

India and Ancient China, chapter 4. Jason Neelis, however, argues Liu's argument about Buddhist values and ideas creating and sustaining demand for commodities associated with the *saptaratna* concept is "highly debatable, since commodities such as gold with intrinsic economic values can be adopted for religious purposes even in traditions (like Buddhism and Christianity) that explicitly reject worldly riches." See Neelis, *Early Buddhist Transmission*, p. 23.

25. Wolters (*Early Indonesian Commerce*, p. 35) has cautioned that Yepoti (Yavadvīpa?) did not necessarily refer to the island known today as Java. Max Deeg suggests that Yepoti may have been located on Sumatra. See Deeg, *Das Gaoseng-Faxian-zhuan*, pp. 179–85.
26. See Li, "The Journey," p. 211.
27. On the Buddhism-Brahmanism rivalry in Southeast Asia, see Miksic, "The Buddhist-Hindu Divide." Their rivalry in South Asia is discussed in detail in Verardi's *Hardships and Downfall of Buddhism in India*.
28. On early Buddhism and Buddhist monks in Guangzhou and Jiaozhou, see Luo, *Tangdai Guangzhou*; and Huang, "Wei Jin Nanbei chao."
29. See, for example, Willemen, "Buddhism's Maritime Route," pp. 6–8.
30. For a detailed study of the role of Southeast Asia in cross-regional maritime interactions, especially in the Buddhist exchanges, see Jacq-Hergoualch'h, *The Malay Peninsula*.
31. For details about these monks who reached China by the maritime routes, see He, *Jin Tang shiqi*, pp. 23–37. Guṇavarman's travel to China and his translation work are discussed by Stache-Rosen, "Gunavarman (367–431)," and Funayama, "Guṇavarman." On Paramārtha and his activities in China, see Funayama, "The Work of Paramārtha." In one of the earliest sources on Bodhidharma, the monk is reported to be of Persian origin (Yang Xuanzhi, *Luoyang qielan ji*, *T*. 2092: 1000b20) and there is no mention of his travelling to China by the sea route.
32. Huijiao, *Gaoseng zhuan*, *T*. 2059: 388a–c.
33. Dharmayaśas's biography appears in the Huijiao, *Gaoseng zhuan*, *T*. 2059: 329b16–c27. His association with the Guanxiao Monastery is mentioned in Luo, *Tangdai Guangzhou*, p. 82; and Huang, "Wei Jin Nanbei chao," p. 79.
34. For the growth in population in Guangzhou from the Qin to the Southern Dynasties periods, see Hu, *Lingnan gushi*, chapter 12. Commercialization in the region is discussed by Liu Shufen in her "Jiankang and the Commercial Empire."
35. Sengyou, *Chu sanzang ji ji*, *T*. 2145: 40c25–41a28. See also Zürcher, "Tidings from the South," p. 31.
36. Zürcher, "Tidings from the South," pp. 31–32.
37. On Guṇavarman's voyage through Java, see Wolters, *Early Indonesian Commerce*, pp. 35–36, and p. 152.
38. Faxian, *Gaoseng Faxian zhuan*, *T*. 2085: 865c26–866a13. On the location of Yepoti, see note 25 above.
39. Faxian, *Gaoseng Faxian zhuan*, *T*. 2085: 866a7–13. The translation here is from Legge, *A Record of Buddhistic Kingdoms*, pp. 112–13.
40. Willemen, "Buddhism's Maritime Route," p. 8. On Mandra[sena], see Wang, "The Buddhist Connection."
41. Guṇavarman's biography appears in Huijiao, *Gaoseng zhuan*, *T*. 2059: 341b18.
42. Scholars have also identified the place with coastal Bengal. See Jacq-Hergoualch'h, *The Malay Peninsula*, p. 216.
43. Zürcher, "Buddhism across Boundaries," pp. 13–14.
44. Huijiao, *Gaoseng zhuan*, *T*. 2059: 325a.13.
45. Nguyen Duy Hinh has argued that Buddhism may have been practiced in Jiaozhi as early as the second century CE. See Nguyen, "Three Legends."
46. See Jacq-Hergoualch'h, *The Malay Peninsula*, p. 400.
47. Munoz, *Early Kingdoms*, p. 123.
48. Chandra, "The Marine Silk Route," pp. 8–9. Since Yijing himself travelled to South Asia by the maritime route, he may have been more familiar with the traffic through the sea route than that by the overland road.
49. Woodward, "Esoteric Buddhism," p. 335.
50. On the activities of this monk, see Lin, "Puṇyodaya (Na-t'i)," and Chen, *Crossfire*, pp. 199–200.
51. A recent study on Vajrabodhi and the Tantric networks in the maritime regions of the Bay of Bengal and South China Sea is Sundberg and Giebel's "The Life of the Tang Court Monk Vajrabodhi."
52. For a recent study of Bianhong, see Woodward, "Bianhong, Mastermind of Borobudur?" See also Chen, *Crossfire*, pp. 120–21, and Sundberg and Giebel, "The Life of the Tang Monk Vajrabodhi," pp. 130–31.
53. Chattopadyaya, *Atīśa and Tibet*, pp. 84–95; Skilling, "Geographies of Intertextuality," p. 94.
54. For this change in the Buddhist interactions between India and China, see Sen, *Buddhism, Diplomacy, and Trade*.

55. See Gunawardana, *Robe and Plough*, chapter 7; and also Gunawardana, "Cosmopolitan Buddhism." For a study of the spread of Theravāda Buddhism in Southeast Asia, see Prapod, *The Ascendancy of Theravāda Buddhism*.
56. Faxian, *Gaoseng Faxian zhuan*, *T*. 2085: 865a28–b9.
57. *Cūḷavaṃsa*, 83.36–52 and 88.70–76; Sirisena, *Śrī Laṅkā and South-East Asia*, pp. 40–43, and Jacq-Hergoualch'h, *The Malay Peninsula*, pp. 425–28.
58. Sen, "Buddhism and Sino-Indian Interactions."
59. See Levathes, *When China Ruled the Seas*, pp. 111–14. The Sinhalese chronicle *Cūḷavaṃsa* and a later commentary to Xuanzang's *Da Tang Xiyu ji* (*T*. 2087: 0939a3–a22) also seem to suggest that Zheng He might have fought the battle with the Sri Lankan ruler in order to obtain the tooth relic of the Buddha. On the trilingual inscription, see Nagel, "The Chinese Inscription," pp. 385–468; and Devendra, "The Galle Tri-Lingual Slab Inscription."
60. Sirisena, *Śrī Laṅkā and South-East Asia*, p. 40.
61. Zanning, *Song Gaoseng zhuan*, *T*. 2061: 711c2–5. On the possible reasons Xuanzong might have issued this order, see Chou, "Tantrism in China," p. 320.
62. Sundberg, "The Wilderness Monks," p. 107.
63. Yuanzhao, *Zhenyuan xinding shijiao mulu*, *T*. 2157: 875a18–876b9. See also Chou, "Tantrism in China."
64. Zanning, *Song Gaoseng zhuan*, *T*. 2061: 712b26–c13. On the Five Divisions, see Chou, "Tantrism in China," pp. 290–92; and Sundberg, "The Wilderness Monks," pp. 104–5.
65. Gunawardana, *Robe and Plough*, p. 31.
66. See Chimpa and Chattopadhyaya, trans., *Tāranātha's History of Buddhism*, p. 18 n. 139. The translators of this work also point out that Ratnākaraśānti-pa (fl. early eleventh century), who came from Vikramaśīla in Bihar and acted as a teacher (*ācārya*) of the Pāla king Dharmapāla, was invited to Sri Lanka by a ruler there named "Ghavin" and stayed in that country for three years. See Chimpa and Chattopadhyaya, trans., *Tāranātha's History of Buddhism*, p. 295 n. 12. On Jayabhadra, see also Frasch, "A Buddhist Network," p. 74.
67. Gunawardana, *Robe and Plough*, p. 31.
68. De Casparis, "New Evidence," p. 245.
69. De Casparis, "New Evidence," p. 245.
70. Degroot, "The Archaeological Remains of Ratu Boko," p. 63.
71. Miksic, "Double Meditation Platforms."
72. On these connections between Abhayagiri and Ratu Boko, see also Sundberg, "The Wilderness Monks" and "A Buddhist Mantra."
73. Degroot, "The Archaeological Remains of Ratu Boko," p. 62.
74. Frasch, "A Buddhist Network," pp. 84–89; and Gunawardana, *Robe and Plough*, pp. 271–77.

References

ABBREVIATIONS

T. *Taishō shinshū daizōkyō* 大正新修大蔵経 [Taishō-era new edition of the Buddhist canon], ed. Takakusu Junjirō 高楠順次郎 (1866–1945), Watanabe Kaikyoku 渡辺海旭 (1872–1932), et al. 100 vols. Tokyo: Taishō issaikyō kankōkai, 1924–35.

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